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Yale POLITICAL JOURNAL

A Magazine of Student Opinion

What Is And What Should Be Our Foreign Policy?

IN THIS ISSUE READ

IMPERIAL DEMOCRACY

By Samuel P. Huntington

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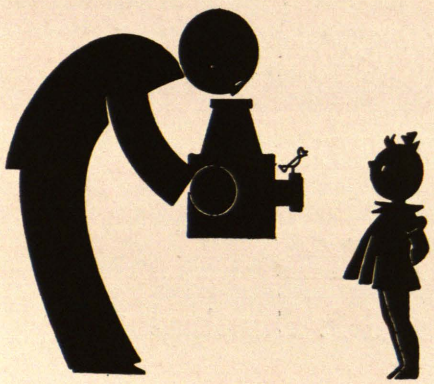
STASSEN AND THE PRESIDENCY

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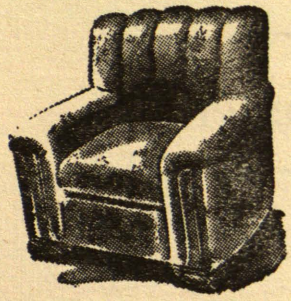
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Editorial

Random Observations

THE MOST APPEALING thing to me about the U. S. A. has always been the endless novelty and variety of our existence. If the traditional forms of amusement fail to accomplish their mission, there is always something new to which we can turn. So when the crop of Hollywood offerings and the summer radio replacements began to dull, the Howard Hughes investigation began. It certainly is heartening to think that the Senate of the United States is so aware of the public pulse that its members can turn at once from the serious business of state to a generally hilarious and good-natured show, especially one with such an array of stars. Although Roosevelt, Hughes and Meyer did well as guest artists, the real credit must go to Senator Ferguson and his straight-man from Maine. I can't wait for these two gentlemen to come to grips with the Marshall aid program and the domestic problem of prices and inflation. What a riot that ought to be!

* * * * * *

From Trenton, N. J. comes word that Mr. Paul Loser, Superintendent of Schools, has urged the teachers of that community "to counteract the spread of communistic doctrines by intensifying their teaching of Americanism." I wish that the *New York Times,* from which the quote is taken, had elaborated on this appeal by Mr. Loser because I remember so clearly the form in which such teaching was presented in my own experience. We were told, rather than taught, that communism and its parent socialism were doctrines foreign to the "American way of life", that we had no use for any suggestions these doctrines might possibly make to improve that rather nebulous tradition. Perhaps in this present age of John Dewey's progressivism it is intensely reactionary to hark back to the days and the methods which taught us *how* to think instead of telling us *what* to think. But since Americanism can never do more than reflect the intelligence and the judgment of Americans, perhaps it would be a good work if the schools of the nation would provide us with the tools with which to make the mature decisions demanded by our perplexing age. This I would suggest as a substitute for the doctrinaire adherence to the tradition of a glorious past which we now use to combat the Marxian philosophy of the glorious future. Both views neglect to consider the not too glorious but all too important present.

* * * * * *

Mr. Stassen, who wants very much to become president of the United States, seems to suffer from roughly the same malady as Mr. Loser. When asked in a recent interview about his attitude on the Marshall Plan, he "reiterated that he would not extend aid . . . to European countries who persist in the march toward state socialization." Mr. Stassen comes dangerously close to being an orthodox Communist in his insistence on one basis for the economy of all nations. Obviously we are to disregard the level of industrial development, the stability of the currency, the problems of economic reconstruction — conditions, in other words, which vary with each European nation. Since a modified capitalism is right (for Mr. Stassen) for the U. S., it is right for any nation which wants U. S. aid. Again the principle of self-determination has been blasted, this time from a quarter which in the past has spoken vigorously for the extension of democracy all over the world. If democracy means both social and political freedom and if European Conservatives and Communists are what they seem to be, this leaves Mr. Stassen with only moderate state socialist groups — which he rejects — as the agents for democratization on the European continent. Mr. Stassen has a most generous nature, however, since he added in this particular interview that "he would not insist on the retraction of any steps (toward state socialization) already taken." This must be Stassen the liberal about whom we have heard so much.

* * * * * *

The Messrs. Green and Murray have been handed a severe setback in Bucks and Lehigh Counties in Pennsylvania, one which we can hope will clear up the muddled reckoning of these two men on the 1948 elections. Since the passage of the Taft-Hartley law, the union leaders have been declaiming wildly (1) that there are approximately

15,000,000 members of organized labor; (2) that the headquarters of both major union organizations are intensely displeased with the law; and (3) that this will mean fifteen million anti-Republican votes in 1948 are assured the Truman administration. Somewhere between steps one and three enters a human factor which counted heavily in Pennsylvania's Eighth Congressional District. The C.I.O. left no room for doubt as to the issue of contention in this election. They asked bluntly "do you want to return Congress to the allied control of the Democratic administration and the left-wing groups, particularly organized labor?" Over 55 per cent of Lehigh County (which includes industrial Allentown and many precincts of Bethlehem) answered no whereas only 54 per cent gave that response in 1946. This single per cent takes on great significance when it is considered that the 1946 campaign was fought on only vague lines of Republican-union disagreement while the 1947 battle was frankly waged over the specific issue of the Taft-Hartley law. Perhaps now the leaders of organized labor will realize that, for good or ill, union labor votes less as a class-conscious bloc than as a group of highly individual men and women. Although I personally disagree violently with their decision, I have to admire the spirit which prompted this revolt from the miserably-organized tactics of the losing candidate's advisors. No campaign can be fought on only one issue today when there are so many objects of our political interest, all of which enter into the final tally before the final votes are recorded. For the sake of Democratic unity and success, I hope that the self-styled "left-wing" will stop counting on the unanimity of organized labor and do something to bring it about.

Notes on Contributors

SAMUEL P. HUNTINGTON is at present a graduate student in the University of Chicago studying International Relations. This was his major at Yale; he received his B. A. in February of 1946 and then served for a year with the army. While at Yale, Mr. Huntington was leader of the Labor Party in the Political Union.

One of the JOURNAL's editors is represented in this issue as a feature writer. RICHARD E. SHAPIRO, '48, is a former President of the Political Union, leader of the Conservative and Federalist parties, and at present is an editor of the *Yale Daily News*.

The author of *Korea — Asia's Trouble Spot,* is a native of Warsaw, Poland. WILLIAM S. GREEN, class of 1949 at Yale, later lived in Palestine before coming to this country. During the war he studied at the Military Intelligence School at Yale and later was principal of the Office of Foreign Affairs School in Korea. From intimate experience there, Mr. Green is well qualified to write of Korea, its problems and place in world affairs.

THOMAS HUGHES, graduate of Carlton College, is a Rhodes Scholar at Oxford University. The JOURNAL published the first half of his lecture, *Marxism and Federalism,* in its last issue. Mr. Hughes is a former president of the Student Federalists' organization.

Imperial Democracy: A Foreign Policy For The United States

by Samuel P. Huntington

LAST AUTUMN the readers of the *New Republic* were treated to a debate between Max Lerner, on the one hand, and Joseph and Stewart Alsop on the other, as to what should be the attitude of American liberals toward Russia. The significance of this exchange of opinions is the complete failure of the two parties to reach an agreement. According to the Alsops, the dominating problem that confronts American statesmanship is our relations with the Soviet Union and all policy must be directed toward the solution of this problem. They warn of the danger, for instance, of attempting to formulate a policy on Palestine and the Middle East without taking into account Russian penetration in that area. If the Russians dominate the Middle East, say the Alsops, then Great Britain will no longer be a great power, and if Great Britain is no longer a great power then there will be no obstacle to Soviet domination of Europe, Africa and Asia. Therefore, in the solution of the Middle East problem, primary consideration must be given to Russia's desire to control that region.

Max Lerner, on the other hand, warns of the danger of becoming "Russia-obsessed". According to him, the policy advocated by the Alsops would lead to our backing a variety of reactionary and Fascist regimes solely because they were anti-Russian. There is, he says, a third alternative to choosing between "the Communists and the sons-of-bitches", and American foreign policy must back the democratic left of center groups committed to both economic planning and political democracy. Once the tensions among the great powers are removed by a policy of this nature, it will be relatively simple to come to an understanding with Russia on Spain, Palestine, the atomic bomb, and any other issues of dispute.

It is impossible to read this series of articles without feeling that both the Alsops and Lerner are right and also that they both are completely out of touch with reality. The reason they could not reach any agreement becomes quite obvious. The Alsops are arguing about foregin policy on the power level, Max Lerner about foreign policy on the ideological level. Each in his own sphere has arrived at a satisfactory conclusion, but neither has brought forward an adequate solution to the problem because they both ignore the existence of another level of policy making. Obviously if our foreign policy is to have any effectiveness and coherence the elements of power and ideology that make it up must be reconciled in such a manner that neither is sacrificed at the expense of the other.

Let us first consider our foreign policy from the point of view of power politics. The aim of policy when considered in this relation must be to promote the national security and national interest of our country. This can be achieved only by securing for our country a favorable power position *vis a vis* those countries which are capable of threatening us. At the present time the only country that can do this is the Soviet Union. Therefore we must aim to maximize our power in relation to Russia, i.e. by all means possible increase our strength and weaken that of Russia's. Only by a policy of this nature will our national security be safeguarded, and only by maintaining a satisfactory balance between the United States and Russia will peace be preserved.

In practical terms this means that we must maintain a large army and navy, secure as many far flung bases as possible, and use our economic strength to win the support of other nations as our allies. The political or economic systems that exist in other nations are immaterial for the purposes of policy making. The sole consideration is to maintain and increase the power on our side in a military and geographical sense.

The consequences of a foreign policy based purely on power factors are that all ethical and moral principles are disregarded. Power and the increase of power becomes an end in itself. Finally it becomes impossible to express policy or rationalize it in terms of ideological aims, like peace, democracy, freedom or equal justice to all nations. There are substituted, instead, national symbols like *lebensraum, mare nostrum,* new order, fatherland of the proletariat. The inevitable result of a power policy is, therefore, imperialism and war. What its advocates fail to realize is that power cannot be an

end in itself without degenerating into the nihilism of fascism. History, past and present, is replete with examples of this.

The ideological approach, on the other hand, views foreign policy solely as a means of furthering the world-wide realization of a universally applicable ideal, like democracy, peace, freedom, justice or prosperity. Foreign policy is based, therefore, to use Hans Morgenthau's phrase, upon an "ideological affinity" rather than upon a community of political interests. The policy toward a country is determined not by the relation of the power of that country to our own but by the economic and political structure of the country. Spain is a fascist country, and therefore we must oppose its present government, even though that government is on our side in our power conflict with Russia, and a republican Spain with a strong communist party would increase Russian influence in western Europe.

The basic fault of this concept of foreign policy lies in the fact that the type of social system a country has is really relevant only to the domestic policy pursued by that country. Its effect on international affairs is relatively minor. It would make little difference whether Russia instead of being a communist dictatorship were a capitalist democracy. The basic power conflict would still remain the same. Russia wanted to dominate eastern Europe and control the Dardanelles just as much under the Czars as under Stalin. Warm water ports and Middle East oil would be just as essential to a capitalist Russia as to a communist one. Of like nature is the fact that Great Britain must always oppose the strongest power in Europe, whether it be a monarchist Spain in the Renaissance, republican France in the nineteenth century, or imperial and Nazi Germany in the twentieth. As British statesmanship has recognized in the famous Crowe memorandum, the basic elements in foreign policy are founded on permanent geographical facts; and that is why the foreign policy of a labor government differs little from that of Winston Churchill. Governments that have attempted to follow a policy based purely on ideological considerations have found it impractical, and have been forced to abandon it, unless they wished to risk national insecurity and destruction.

To base a foreign policy, therefore, upon exclusively ideological or exclusively power premises must in the long run be fatal to the country attempting such a policy. If an ideological policy is adopted, a country will weaken itself, politically and militarily, by ignoring its own vital interests. If a power policy is decided upon, a country will embark upon a program of aggressiveness and imperialism which will end domestic liberties and lead to the rest of the world combining against it.

Is our foreign policy to be based upon power or ideology? At the present time, it is actually based upon neither. To be effective, it must be founded upon both. The fact that it is to a large degree a compound of these two elements is what gives Russian policy its grim realistic quality. If we are to match the Russians in a bid for world leadership, our policy must meet similar standards. But while the Russians are using their ideology to further their power, we must use our power to further our ideological aims. In other words we must move towards the goals of the liberal ideologists, using the means of the power politicians. We must avoid the tendency of the liberals to believe that the end can also be the means, as well as the practice of the power politicians to elevate the means to an end.

Basic to any constructive foreign policy for the United States must be a realization that this country will have to play an active, positive, leading, and even dominating role in international politics. To do this, the United States must be strong, politically, militarily and ideologically. It is perhaps one of the greatest weaknesses of liberal thinkers in foreign affairs that they fail to realize this very point. By the very nature of international politics force and power are the ultimately deciding factors. Liberal ideologists have had a natural aversion to power as such, forgetting that power is ethically neutral and can be used for good ends or bad. It is this fact that has in recent months put liberals of the Wallace variety on the same side as the *Chicago Tribune* in debates on international affairs.

Our two great aims in foreign policy must be the ideological goals of the preservation of peace and the extension of democracy. Liberals have advanced many theories as to how to achieve the first of these goals. Wilson said that by the spread of democratic governments in the world, peace would be assured. Other liberals have maintained that international free trade was the best guarantee of peace; that industrialization of backward nations will bring about peace; that universal literacy will do likewise; and that a better knowledge and understanding of foreign countries and their cultures will prevent war. It has also been held that only those nations with low living standards are aggressive. Liberals, however, have all along missed the basic cause of war, which lies in the nature of the sovereign state system. As long as independent nations with their conflicting interests exist, wars will be inevitable. The only solution lies in the radical change of the modern state system.

Some liberals have come to realize the fact that a form of world government is necessary. They still however do not see that world government will not become a reality until it becomes the objective of the foreign policy of a major power. It is this goal which must become one of the principal aims of United States foreign policy. World government can only be the result of constructive, far-sighted and realistic statesmanship, and only the United States possesses sufficient power at the present time to make it an actuality. As a first step towards achieving this goal the United States must sponsor and vigorously support amendments to the United Nations charter, ending the veto power, providing for a stronger executive and transforming the General Assembly into a real legislative body. If these measures are blocked by a Russian veto or some other parliamentary device, the United States must be prepared to set up a federation of nations with itself as a nucleus outside the frame work of the United Nations.

Many liberals will say that this policy will lead to war with Russia. It is, however, the only program which offers any chance of avoiding such a conflict. With the distribution of power such as it is today, any other policy that the United States might follow would inevitably lead to war. The only hope of avoiding armed conflict between the American power and the Soviet power is to create a power stronger than either of them. If peace is to be preserved, the United States must take the lead in creating a real federation working towards peace. By assuming the initiative, the United States will be guaranteeing that its own power interests will not be sacrificed.

The most important result of this policy of acting as a driving force for a limited world government will be that it will enable the United States actively to intervene throughout the world in the support of the democratic forces, action which it is now prohibited from taking by the nature of its power conflict with the U. S. S. R. The ideological aim of the extension of democracy can become the practical aim of policy once the United States is the nucleus of a growing federation of states. In fact, it is absolutely essential that the United States pursue such a policy if it is to avoid a Burnhamesque program of American imperialism.

A necessary prerequisite to the further extension of democracy in the world is the overthrow of the old feudal aristocratic order in those portions of the world where it still exists, particularly South America, the Near East, China and Spain. If we are to support democracy throughout the world, we must realize that such a policy means the support of social revolution also. Democracy only flourishes in those countries which have a strong middle class and a strong labor movement. Where wealth is distributed between a small upper class which possesses the lion's share and a large majority of peasants or workers who receive barely enough for subsistence, democracy is impossible. The United States must use its power to intervene actively throughout the world to remedy this situation.

Not only, however, are there the old enemies of democracy, the classes of the old regime which have missed their cue to exit from the stage of history, but more dangerous are the new enemies of democracy that have appeared, the semi-mass based totalitarian movements, which use democracy as a means to end democracy. It will be in competition with these ideologies, whether communist or fascist, that the United States must strive for support from the peoples of the world. This the United States can only do by taking the initiative away from the totalitarians, and backing those political movements that have demonstrated that they have real popular appeal.

In terms of specific policy this means that the United States must end its policy of inaction in China, and actively come to the aid of the Chinese communists in their fight against the dictatorship of Chiang Kai-Shek. In Japan we must not allow those elements which were responsible for the war to remain in control of the country's economic and political structure. If we do, a democratic Japan would have the same chance of surviving as the Weimar Republic had after the last war. In southeastern Asia, in Indo-China, and the East Indies, the United States must support the independence movements against French and Dutch imperialism. In the Near East we must aid the development of mass movements among the Arab farmers and workers, and also facilitate not only the development of a Jewish Commonwealth in Palestine but in addition the use of the whole sparsely populated Middle Eastern area as an outlet for Europe's surplus population. In Europe the United States must support, politically and economically, those already existing democracies, and oppose with such political and economic weapons as it possesses the dictatorships in Spain, Portugal, Yugo-Slavia, Albania, Turkey, and the Soviet Union. In these countries the United States must actively support the formation of democratic resistance movements. In South America, a similar policy must be followed.

In supporting these democratic movements, our aid must be conditioned upon reciprocal support of our plan for democratic world government. Using this means the United States will be able to

work for the achievement of peace and democracy without sacrificing national security or national interests. The elements of power and ideology are effectively reconciled in a foreign policy the basis of which is decisive action by the United States in world affairs. There are, of course, certain necessary prerequisites to such a policy in the internal political situation in the United States. The dangers are that a Republican or conservative Democratic administration will ignore the necessity of supporting the democratic elements abroad, while a liberal administration would neglect entirely our power conflict with Russia and formulate a policy which would only lead to appeasement and war. In any event the policy proposed above could be carried out only by a popular resurgence in the control of government in a period of crisis such as characterized the New Freedom of Woodrow Wilson and the New Deal of Franklin Roosevelt.

Whatever hand guides the workings of the universe, whether it be God, fate or the dialectic, it has determined that the United States must play a decisive role in this stage of world history. If we do not accept the challenge which confronts us the outlook for civilization is gloomy. Henry Luce has called this the American Century; Henry Wallace has called this the Century of the Common Man. It is within our power to make it both.

Stassen and the American Presidency

by Richard E. Shapiro

Can the Republican Party win the presidency in 1948? Popular dissatisfaction with the prevailing tenor of GOP leadership is spreading steadily. The public is demanding tangible results on issues like health, housing, and taxation. The continued lack of a positive approach to pressing economic and social problems may well spell defeat.

Of all the prospective candidates perhaps only Harold Edward Stassen will be able to lead a "new, liberal, humanitarian" Republican Party over the difficult path to the White House a year from November. But who is this man Stassen and where does he stand?

Harold Stassen is a powerfully built (6'3", 220 lbs.), youthful (40) Minnesotan with sandy, balding hair. A lawyer by profession, he is married and has two small children. He is a Baptist and comes from Czech-German-Norwegian farmer stock.

Educated in the public schools of West St. Paul, he worked his way through the University of Minnesota, receiving a law degree in 1929. While at college, according to John Gunther, "he was an exceptionally brilliant and pertinacious student, and his industry was colossal."

Stassen has always been first and last an organization Republican. His father, William Stassen, was a local party dignitary, and young Harold helped organize the Minnesota Young Republicans, serving as their first president.

In 1930, while recovering from tuberculosis, he ran for county attorney of turbulent Dakota County, home of stockyards and gangsterism, and there began his unbroken chain of political triumphs. As county attorney he brought about the settlement of severe mill and packing house strikes, and was easily re-elected.

Minnesota was under the agrarian radical rule of the Farmer-Labor Party during the early 1930's. Governor Elmer Benson found himself at the head of an uncontrollable party which was split internally by factional strife much as the American Left is today. Furthermore, an angry, vicious upsurge of uncurbed strikes, vandalism, and gang assassination plagued big cities like Minneapolis.

Into this unpleasant scene Stassen entered as Republican candidate for governor in 1938. He fought through the primaries because Minnesota's Republicans had had enough of the negatively reactionary Old Guard leadership. Facing a divided and discredited Farmer-Labor Party in the final election, he routed Benson by over 250,000 votes.

As a result of his 1938 gubernatorial campaign Stassen has been accused of anti-Semitism. Richard H. Rovere points out, "A group of Stassen's supporters, whom he later disowned, made ugly but effective use of anti-Semitism to the delight of the extreme reactionaries." But no sign of Stassen's approval or participation in such tactics can be found.

At the time, Ray P. Chase, a prominent Minnesota Republican, issued a vicious pamphlet entitled "Are They Communists or Catspaws?", an attack upon the Benson Administration in abusive, bigoted language. Of this Roscoe Drummond, authoritative head of the *Christian Science Monitor* Washington bureau, asserts, "There is no evidence that he (Stassen) was either aware of or benefited by the crude . . . pamphlet."

So, for lack of proof, and in view of Stassen's subsequent record (in 1946 he was chairman of American Brotherhood Week), the charge of anti-Semitism must be dropped as unjustified.

As governor of Minnesota Stassen brought about a series of reforms which bolster his claim to the capacity for decisive, liberal executive action.

He put state employment on a merit basis, adopting civil service examinations to replace the outmoded spoils system. He cut the number of state employees one-third, and ten officials of the Farmer-Labor government were convicted and imprisoned for misuse of office.

The office of state business manager (Commissioner of Administration) was introduced by Stassen to centralize state purchasing, halt overspending by the various departments, and inject efficiency into Minnesota's financial affairs. He and his handpicked successors, Ed Thye and Luther Youngdahl, have chopped the state debt some 63 million dollars (30%) since 1939. They resisted unwarranted tax

cuts and have whittled down state expenditures 12%.

Stassen's Labor Peace Act provoked a storm of controversy, but it must be viewed in the light of the circumstances connected with its passage and the results it has obtained.

Extremists within his own party called for a harshly restrictive labor law to cripple the union movement, but Stassen fought for and saw enacted legislation which "does not go to the extreme of compulsory arbitration; neither does it allow industrial strife to proceed in a vacuum. It does not take away the right to strike, but it delays the exercise of that right while an attempt is made to determine the causes of the dispute and effect remedies." [1]

The act provides for a 10 day waiting period with continued negotiations before any strike may be called. If a strike is deemed by the governor as endangering the public interest then a 30 day postponement may be prescribed and a commission set up to study the case. In 1939, for example, five commissions were appointed and five major strikes thus averted.

The yearly average number of striking workers in Minnesota for 1936-1938 (before the Labor Peace Act) was 15,865. In the six years following its enactment this was cut to an annual figure of 4,750. Minnesota's 1945 average was one-third of that of the nation at large. The loss in man-days from labor disputes has been reduced to one-third since 1939 as well.

Quelling union fears, Stassen tried to administer the law as fairly as possible. He appointed Lloyd Haney, head of the St. Paul Typographical Union, as first Labor Conciliator under the act and conferred monthly with a group of labor leaders. When the United States entered World War II, Stassen organized the Labor Volunteers for Victory to aid the war effort.

Milburn Akers, chief political writer for the *Chicago Sun,* has this to say of the political coloration of Stassen's total administration: "Stassen found himself equally at odds with the frequently extreme positions of the Farmer-Laborites and of the reactionary forces in control of Minnesota's Republican Party. He chose, therefore, to go down the center and he has, in the main, stuck to that path ever since."

In 1940 Stassen first began to enunciate the outspoken internationalism that distinguished him immediately from an ordinary Middlewestern politician. He came out vigorously for preparedness, aid to Great Britain, and world organization — thus defying rigid Republican taboos.

Also in that year he was chosen to keynote the Republican National Convention, though too young himself to be nominated for president. In an unprecedented move Stassen became floor manager of the Wendell Willkie stampede which saw a liberal candidate emerge from the deadlock of two political titans, Dewey and Taft. History could repeat itself next summer.

Stassen was re-elected governor twice and resigned to enter the Navy as a Lieutenant Commander in 1943. At that time he issued a ringing plea for international cooperation: "Two world wars and a world-wide depression in a single generation speak loudly and tragically of the need to develop a new and higher level of government to serve mankind . . . The cornerstone of the United Nations government must be a deep respect for the fundamental dignity of man of every race, color, and creed."

As flag secretary and later as assistant chief of staff to Admiral "Bull" Halsey in the Pacific, Stassen was three times decorated and rose to the rank of Captain before his discharge in November, 1945. He showed exceptional administrative ability and tireless energy in heading the evacuation of 13,000 American prisoners to hospital ships during a 14 day period in Japan.

President Roosevelt asked Stassen to serve as a delegate to the United Nations Conference at San Francisco in the spring of 1945, at which time the United Nations Charter was drawn up. On leave from military duty, he served brilliantly, devoting special attention to the trusteeship and human rights provisions of the Charter. Though his insistence upon a greater sacrifice of national sovereignty fell on deaf ears, he was chosen (along with Herbert Evatt, Australia's astute foreign minister) as one of the two outstanding men at San Francisco in a poll of press correspondents.

Since his discharge Stassen has been campaigning openly across the length and breadth of America for the presidential nomination. In 21 months he has spoken before 250 audiences in 40 states, constantly plugging for young, liberal Republican candidates in public office and a progressive party stand on the major issues of the day. He helped establish the Republican Open Forums in order to reach out to the grass roots party organizations.

In the 1946 primaries he backed Governor Dwight Griswold of Nebraska against veteran isolationist Hugh Butler for Butler's Senate seat, and suffered a severe setback when Griswold took a two-to-one beating on election day. But Stassen's

1.—Milburn Akers, *Nation,* June 29, 1946.

political crony, Governor Ed Thye, restored lost prestige as he ousted another isolationist, Minnesota's Hendrik Shipstead, from the Senate by a thumping majority during the same campaign.

Testifying before the Senate Committee on Labor and Public Welfare last February he came out in favor of the following labor program: free speech for employers; no mass picketing; an independent conciliation service; a 30-day cooling-off period and a secret ballot on management's last offer before striking; union financial reports; democratic union elections; no jurisdictional strikes or secondary boycotts; no permit fees for non-union workers; and no foremen's unions.

On the other hand at the same hearing he vigorously opposed compulsory arbitration; labor courts; curtailment of the right to strike; and a compulsory labor draft. He also asked that the right of labor to a closed or union ship, industry-wide bargaining, and protection under the Norris-LaGuardia "anti-injunction" Act remain unhampered.

"You cannot separate the rights and powers of labor," he observed, "from the rights and powers of unions. In other words, if you take away the union, labor's rights then are very limited. Labor then is very weak. That is what happened in the 1920's."

And Stassen rose to heights of eloquence when his one-time political protege, Minnesota's Senator Joseph Ball, attacked him at the committee session:

> "Ball: Collective bargaining is an interference with a completely free market.
>
> Stassen: You cannot treat labor as a commodity in a free market. Labor is people; it is men and women — fellow citizens."

His testimony so impressed the committee that even rabid New Dealer Claude Pepper was moved to remark, "I do want to commend you upon the value and fairness of your contribution."

Stassen endorsed the Taft-Hartley Bill while criticizing its bans on the closed shop and on union funds for political activity. He declared that the law will be "good if administered with fairness." These are meaningful words, because a prime factor in Stassen's success as a governor was his fair administration of statutes.

Turning to the international scene, Stassen lashed out against the "remnants of a policy of economic isolationism" in a startling Lincoln Day Address to the National Republican Club of New York: "We directly say that our Republican Party recognizes that a high tariff policy no longer suits America and that we believe in the increased flow of goods and materials and services and travel around the globe."

Then, in Jefferson, Iowa, while denouncing the international economic views of both the *New Republic's* Henry Wallace and the *Chicago Tribune's* Colonel Robert McCormick, he proposed that 10% of America's total national product of goods and food during the next ten years be used to build peace, plenty, and freedom throughout the world, with repayment in raw materials to replenish our dwindling stockpiles. He called for this positive approach because of the need "to build up and not merely to block or contain or oppose."

Last spring Stassen visited Europe for nine weeks. He made first hand observations and talked with governmental leaders in Czechoslovakia, England, France, Italy, and Russia, including an interview with Stalin.

Upon returning he gave an off-the-record talk before the Oversea Writers Group in Washington, D.C. The gist of this talk was that war with Russia is not inevitable, but that Soviet cooperation with the Western democracies awaits two signs: 1) that U. S. capitalism can work in creating prosperity and avoiding depression; and 2) that Communist infiltration tactics in Europe and Asia will fail.

Stassen feels that our world economic policy this winter is critical and warns against dividing Europe or uniting against Russia in carrying out the Marshall Plan (though he approves of the Plan itself). He would create a Production for Peace Board, working through and with the UN, to carry out our aid program. Specific projects which Stassen considers part of American aid include stepping up Ruhr coal production, promoting a customs union between Belgium, Holland, and Luxembourg, and solving the British economic dilemma.

As to atomic energy, he is hopeful that during the coming year a strengthened UN will emerge with a control and inspection plan that does not include the right of veto.

Other points on Stassen's legislative ledger are: 1) "government support" of farm prices along with voluntary production shifts to meet the changing needs of the domestic and global economy; 2) federal funds to speed the flow of materials into vitally needed housing, but continued private construction; 3) a "broad tax base" without "short-sighted attempts at hasty reductions of taxes;" 4) a national health program based on existing voluntary medical plans plus a free annual health checkup for all citizens; 5) tax relief for small bus-

inesses; and 6) an intelligently planned series of public works projects.

Stassen's serious, calculating, ambitious political attitude has led some critics to label him a vacillating opportunist. Milburn Akers replies, "To charge Stassen with opportunism is to challenge his sincerity, and it is hard to make a case against his sincerity when one considers his early and vigorous espousal of internationalism in the days when the Middle West, Minnesota included, was rampant in its isolationism." Akers adds that Stassen is "just as sincere in his other positions."

Stassen's first book, in which he will expound his political philosophy, will be entitled *Where I Stand* and will be published this November. The many organizations pushing his candidacy will soon swing into full scale action.

The first real test of strength will be in the crucial Wisconsin primary next April. Wisconsin is the first state to choose delegates to the Republican National Convention, and is the state where Wendell Willkie's hopes for a political comeback were smashed in 1944. Stassen's chances appear much brighter than Willkie's. Though he has the supporters of General Douglas MacArthur pitted against him, Stassen has two powerful forces on his side in young Senator Joseph McCarthy, who defeated Bob LaFollette in 1946, and Tom Coleman, the state GOP boss. If Stassen can win in Wisconsin he may have a considerable number of delegates behind him by convention time.

Stassen's popularity in comparison with other Republican presidential aspirants has sunk, however, during the past 15 month from 34% to 15% the Gallup Poll indicates. In a spring survey, Gallup found, on the other hand, that 44% of the Republican voters were favorable to Stassen, 21% opposed, 10% undecided, and 25% or one-fourth unfamiliar. While the number of unfamiliar people is high, it represents a marked improvement over 1943 when one-half didn't know who Stassen was. It is difficult to catch the public eye.

Let us look ahead for a moment to the Republican National Convention. There are 1093 voting delegates and a total of 547 is necessary to nominate a candidate. Dewey is sure of 400; Taft, 300. The rest will be divided among numerous favorite sons such as Warren, Saltonstall, and Martin. Stassen will probably have in the neighborhood of 100 first ballot votes from Minnesota, Wisconsin, Iowa, Nebraska, and the Dakotas.

A continuing split between Dewey and Taft will elevate a compromise candidate, and this man likely will be a liberal if the campaign ahead appears to be a difficult one. Stassen hopes to be that liberal compromise candidate.

As to the possibility of his running for vice-president Stassen has said that he might consider such action if the party chose a presidential candidate of whom he approved. This does not mean Dewey, he has made clear. Recently, when Dewey came out for universal military training, Stassen quipped that it was good to hear Dewey take a stand on something.

Stassen's early-bird tactics in openly seeking the nomination have forced Dewey and Taft to expose themselves to the cruel light of public approval or disapproval much earlier than they had planned. If his strategy succeeds, the people will express themselves as to which man they prefer, and thus influence the Convention.

What will happen between now and the time of the Republican National Convention is a political question mark. Joseph and Stewart Alsop have prophesied, "The shadow of world crisis throws a man's stature into bold relief. It may well be that by 1948 only Stassen, among all the Republican aspirants, will measure up."

Stassen is faced with a two-horned dilemma which he must surmount if he is to realize his ambitions. He must sell his brand of liberalism to the Old Guard in order to be nominated and then to be elected he must woo the independent voters who returned Franklin Roosevelt to office four times. The independents would be a relatively soft touch, but the Old Guard is dead set against him. According to Akers, "they fear that he would lead the party, not be led by it, and they don't like the direction in which he would steer it — toward something more than lip service to the cause of world government and a progressive domestic program."

The shifting winds of public opinion indicate that the road to Republican victory in 1948 will not be rose-strewn. In fact, if a presidential election were held today, 55% of the people would vote Democratic.

Unless the Republican Party can mend its electoral fences, it is likely that the Truman Administration will be returned to power along with a predominantly Democratic Congress. As time passes it becomes increasingly evident that such fence-mending must be rooted in vigorously liberal domestic and world policies rather than in vague yearnings for the wornout cliches of the past.

Such forward-looking Republican Senators as Raymond Baldwin (Conn.), Henry Cabot Lodge, Jr. (Mass.), and Wayne Morse (Ore.) have repeatedly called for a dynamic party program to merit the confidence of the voters who chose a Republican Congress in 1946. They realize that the

platform which elected Hoover is no key to the 1948 ballot boxes.

Whether or not the Old Guard heeds these storm-warnings is problematic. That as hardheaded politicians they should note well the trend of events and adapt to the changed conditions of the present is obvious.

As America enters the third year of the Atomic Age the tragic international situation becomes more ominous in its portent day by day. There is strife in Greece, Indonesia, Palestine, India, China, and Eastern Europe. Talk of World War III is commonplace.

The burden of the American presidency is no longer a provincial task. It has broad global implications, because the course steered by the United States in the crucial years ahead will largely determine whether there shall be peace and prosperity or war and chaos in our time.

The world cries for leadership and vision. Among all possible presidential candidates Harold Stassen seems to have these qualities in greatest abundance. Perhaps the "shadow of world crisis" will elevate him to the helm of our nation for the struggle ahead.

The ringing words of Harold Stassen's basic philosophy echo through a tired and bleeding world as he says, "The overall objective of the American system should be to furnish all the men and women and children of America all of the necessities and, to an increasing degree, the comforts of modern life; to do so on a basis that will contribute to their individual freedom of thought and action, their strength of character, their happiness, and their human dignity; and to contribute at the same time to the steady march of progress of all mankind in a world at peace."

Korea—Asia's Trouble Spot

by William S. Green

THE CLASH BETWEEN the East and the West finds one of its most outstanding examples in the deadlock over the future of Korea. There, in the gateway to Russia's heartland, the basic problems of the U. S.—Russian conflict come into sharp relief. With both countries pledged to exercise their good offices toward the creation of a free and independent Korea, their respective methods of reaching that goal give us a concrete example of their varying points of view.

The U. S. and Russia are self-invited guests in Korea, both having decided in December, 1945, that the welfare of the Korean people would best be served by the establishment of a joint trusteeship by the two powers for a period not to exceed five years. It is interesting to note that no Korean leader or representative was consulted by the powers prior to the issuance of the Moscow Declaration, which forms the basis for the trusteeship; the present joint occupation is hardly a response to the Korean popular will.

Superficially, the differences between the powers appear to lie in their inability to agree on the definition of the word "democratic." As stipulated in the Moscow Declaration, both powers are bound to consult with the leaders of Korean democratic parties and social organizations in the formation of a provisional national government. Thus far, the U. S. and Russia have not been able to decide who exactly can be classified as "democratic."

The Soviet position has been that only those Korean parties which have declared themselves in favor of trusteeship should be consulted by the Joint Commission convoked for the purpose of setting up a provisional national government. The Russians have argued that since the anti-trusteeship parties have declared themselves against the spirit of the Moscow Declaration, they have renounced their right to participate in the deliberations arising out of that declaration. They have also accused many of the anti-trusteeship leaders of being former Japanese sympathizers. The American stand has been that opposition to the Moscow declaration should not bar any party from being heard in deliberations affecting the future of all Koreans, no matter what their political affiliation.

There is, however, a much more basic cause for the inability of the powers to reach an understanding. That cause is the fear that Korea will become a base of operations by one nation against the spheres of influence of the other. The Russians want a Korean government that would not menace the Russian Maritime provinces. Soviet General Terenty Shtikov was very blunt about this. He stated: "The Soviet Union has a keen interest in Korea being a true democratic and independent country, friendly to the Soviet Union, so that in the future it will not become a base for an attack on the Soviet Union." The United States, on the other hand, would like to see Korea as free of Communist influence as possible. The U. S. Commander, Lt. Gen. John R. Hodge, spoke the diplomatic language when he said: "It is the earnest intention of the American delegation to prevent the domination of Korea by small minorities, no matter how vocal or well organized they are, or how energetic they may be in their political activities."

While the diplomats continue their haggling and discussions, the country is hopelessly split by an artificial line of demarcation running along the 38th parallel, with the U. S. occupying the south, and the Russians controlling the north. As in other Soviet-dominated territories, strict censorship prevails in North Korea, with occasional travelers and refugees serving as the main source of news for the outside world. Because of the unofficial character of these reports, many of them have to be taken not too literally, but the majority of them picture life in the Russian zone as being extremely difficult. There are constant reports of misbehavior of Russian troops and the requisitioning of food by the Soviet authorities. The validity of these complaints cannot be checked because the Russians have been unwilling to grant freedom of movement to American officers and newspaper correspondents.

In sharp contrast, the public relations officers in the U. S. zone have been trying to get as much news as possible concerning Korea into the American press and to arouse public interest in the difficulties confronting the U. S. in that country.

The U. S. authorities in Korea are faced with a twofold problem, discounting the international one. The political situation in the country is most unstable, and the economic state is far from encouraging. An understanding of the Korean problem requires an insight into both of these complicated questions.

The Political Problem

Any discussion of the political problem must, of necessity, be largely devoted to the U. S. zone. Details concerning political activity in the Russian zone are not available. It is known, however, that in their zone the Russians have established so called People's Committees which run the country under the general supervision of the Russian Command. There is an embryonic opposition in the North, centering around the aged Cho Man Sik, but its activities are conducted under the cloak of secrecy. Mr. Cho himself has been unwilling to reveal the scope of the opposition nor the names of its leaders in fear of inviting retaliation.

In the U. S. zone, at the time of entry of the American troops, there were approximately 90 political groups and organizations, generally grouped around the right, middle, and extreme left of the political scale. The main opponents in the political arena were, and still continue to be, the "Provisional Government" and the Communists. The "Provisional Government", composed of the landowners and other right wing elements, including U. S. and Chinese educated Koreans, was established in China under the leadership of Kim Koo during the Japanese occupation. It has been opposed to the principle of trusteeship but has been generally cooperative with the U. S. authorities. Diametrically opposed to the "Provisional Government" is the Korean Communist party, which has claimed Pak Heoun Young as its leader. Fully in accord with the principles of trusteeship, the Communists have preached agrarian equality rather than their customary industrial socialization.

Between these two major opponents can be found scores of minor parties, each with its platforms and programs, and each trying to outdo its competitors in vociferocity. These struggling parties present the U. S. authorities with a confused picture. No matter what the Americans do, they can be sure that their action will be criticized by a number of political organizations as being undemocratic or in violation of the Moscow Declaration.

The paradox of the situation is that the parties opposed to the principle of trusteeship have been generally cooperative with the U. S. Military Government, while those that applaud the Moscow Declaration have assumed a constantly critical attitude toward the U. S.

At this point it would be well to review the chain of command employed by the U. S. authorities in Korea. The chief U. S. governing body in the country is the Headquarters United States Armed Forces in Korea which is under the command of Lt. Gen. John R. Hodge. The purpose of this group is to direct overall U. S. policy and exercise tactical command over the occupation forces numbering about 40,000, a large number of them service troops. The U. S. Military Government is the actual government of Korea. Headed by a Military Governor, formerly the late Maj. Gen. Archer L. Lerch, it is divided into various departments and offices corresponding to a standard governmental setup, with a Korean chief of department and an American advisor.

Subordinate provincial governments are centered around MG teams, which are in turn divided into MG companies distributed in the major cities. Each of these groups has Korean correspondents to positions occupied by American officers.

The above system, although presenting an effective picture on paper, is far from efficient. There is little coordination between the various offices and agencies. The officers in charge, most of whom are either tactical officers or just out of OCS, are lacking in or have very little experience in government. They are hopelessly entangled in Army red tape, and a vast majority of them are counting the days when their period of service will be over and they will leave the country. Almost none of them speak the Korean language and have to rely on interpreters whose knowledge of English is far from satisfactory.

This language difficulty has had an important effect on the type of personnel employed in governmental offices. The stress has been made on employing persons who speak English to some degree. Since under the Japanese system only the upper classes had any opportunity for an education, the majority of the Korean MG officials come from the upper classes, with little representation given to other social strata. These officials have a great influence on the everyday MG policy, since many officers are willing to relinquish all their duties to the Korean officials and are satisfied with merely signing documents submitted to them. In general, although the intentions of the top level command may be good, by the time they are executed by the subordinate agencies, they are often misinterpreted or changed.

This seeming inefficiency of the Military Government has had an unhealthy effect on the atti-

tude of the Koreans toward democracy in general and toward the U. S. in particular. Under the Japanese rule, the orders of the government were immediately carried out and the violators ruthlessly punished. Under American trusteeship, the Koreans everyday see MG ordinances being openly violated without punishment to the transgressors. To the Koreans this is a sign of weakness. In the orient, leniency is interpreted as lack of power; and as the months go by, one can notice a decline in the respect that the MG commands among the masses.

In the midst of this lack of strong and authoritative government, the political parties have been increasing their activity and vociferocity. The actions of the left have become so extensive that on various occasions U. S. Military Police and counter-intelligence agents have discovered imposing quantities of arms and ammunition in party headquarters or hidden behind innocent looking "fronts". The suspension on several occasions of Communist newspapers, one of which was suspected of being a front for a counterfeit ring, was greeted by the remaining leftist newspapers as another evidence of U. S. imperialism. On the other hand, the suspension of rightist newspapers for printing material inciting to bloodshed was treated by the rightist press as a violation by the U. S. of the sacred principle of freedom of the press.

Above all in this confused situation remains the fact that the man on the street is interested only in two things — getting enough rice for himself and his family, and hoping that both the U. S. and Russia leave his country alone. Of these two desires, the rice is the more important one. Without it, independence has no meaning.

The Economic Situation

Korea like most of the countries in the East, is predominantly a rice consuming country. Rice constitutes the major portion of the diet of the people, and because of that is the standard of value and the principal means of exchange. Paper money has little or no value if it cannot readily be exchanged into the life giving rice. If the Military Government could get enough rice distributed fairly among the people, it would have solved its main problem, and assured the U. S. a strong ally on the Asiatic mainland. The tragic fact of the rice situation is that there is almost enough rice in Korea to feed the people an above starvation diet. The U. S. zone is predominantly agricultural and, before the division of the country, served as the rice bowl for all of Korea.

Under the Japanese, rice was collected under a quota system established by Tokyo and enforced by the Army with all its characteristic brutality. Only enough rice was left in Korea to maintain a minimum subsistence level, and the rest of the grain was exported to Japan to maintain her war machine.

The U. S. landings came too late for the MG to collect the 1945 rice harvest to any great extent. The supplies stored by the Japanese were insufficient to feed the city until the subsequent harvest, and the individual farmer became the focus of attention. If he could supply the city dwellers with enough rice, at reasonable prices, to tide them over when government supplies gave out, a major crisis would have been averted. The MG moved to establish an Office of Price Administration to control prices and prevent inflation. The OPA and other MG agencies issued rules and regulations concerning the marketing, collection and transportation of rice. These regulations were openly violated by both the farmers and the consumers. Prices soared to dizzy heights as an extensive black market developed, forcing the currency down to a fraction of its face value.

There were a number of reasons for this situation. First, the farmer, uncertain of the future state of affairs, was keeping his rice for home consumption. Second, a grain which was widely used as a rice substitute came from North Korea, and was therefore not available in the U. S. zone. Third, the farmer did not want to sell his rice because of the uncertain value of money. Fourth, there was evidence of deliberate hoarding by farmers to force an increase of prices. Fifth, some farmers feared that their rice would be transported out of the country. Sixth, there was difficulty in bringing the rice from the country into the cities. Finally, refugees from the northern zone and repatriates constantly swelled the population.

In addition to the above difficulties, the artificial line along the 38th parallel has been crippling whatever steps have been taken toward industrial recovery of the U. S. zone. With the majority of mineral resources and hydroelectric power in the Russian zone, the southern section of the country was destined to a purely agricultural economy. Whatever hydroelectric power was available in the U. S. section had to come from the North through the sufferance of the Russians, depriving southern industry of an assured source of power. The Russians also controlled the native sources of fertilizer, and the lack of it was diminishing the yield of the land, further hampering the recovery of the U. S. zone. In recent months, the U. S. has shipped imposing amounts of fertilizer to alleviate this situation.

For the reasons discussed above, the economic situation in the country deteriorated to such an extent that the man on the street became restless. Money became practically worthless — the yen, lacking official dollar exchange value and pegged at a military rate of 15 to a dollar, was offered openly on the black market at 100 to 1. On numerous occasions there were demonstrations and bread riots as well as strikes by workers demanding higher pay or reduction of the inflationary prices.

The MG was caught in an economic vise. It either could nationalize all land and industry, a step it was unwilling to take, or it had to remove all market restrictions and restore *laissez faire,* highly impractical under the circumstances. As a result, its actions were often indecisive and confused. They all exhibited a lack of a basic and definite economic policy, and because of their stop-gap nature added to rather than detracted from the general confusion.

The U. S. and Korea

Because of its position on the map of Asia — it is like a dagger pointing at the heart of Japan and it controls the approaches to Shanghai — Korea is of utmost importance to the U. S. from both a strategic and political point of view. A friendly government in Korea would act as a buffer in the defense of Japan, which is in the American sphere of influence, and would strengthen the American position on the Asiatic mainland. The Russians, however, also have important stakes in Korea. To them a friendly Korea means protection for their important base at Vladivostok and a base for activities in Manchuria and North China.

The solution of the Korean problem as an international question cannot come as an isolated incident because it represents in miniature the entire East-West conflict. As evidenced by the repeated failures of the Joint Commission, the local authorities cannot bring about an end to the dilemma. Only a general rapprochement between the opposing camps can stabilize the situation in that country.

As far as internal policy in Korea is concerned, it leaves much room for improvement. The Military Government must first establish a concrete and precise set of principles to guide it, stating exactly what it wants and what it does not want. The business of running a country is far too complex to be formulated in a simple statement that the Americans are in Korea "to bring peace and prosperity to its people." In formulating its principles, the MG must take into account the background, desires, and political way of thinking of the population. Under no circumstances should the U. S. attempt to impose the American interpretation of a democracy on a people who are not yet enough politically and economically mature to appreciate it.

Once having charted its course, the U. S. Military Government should find skilled people to carry it into effect. It should recognize the fact that soldiering and governing cannot be carried on simultaneously and return the gray-haired colonels who have been running the various departments to their regimental headquarters. In place of these military men it should recruit experts in economics and industry to rebuild the shattered national economy. Steps should also be taken to broaden the structure of the government to create as much self-determination as possible by the population. A significant move in that direction has been the publication of Ordinance 118, providing for elections to an Interim Legislative Assembly to act as an advisory body to the Military Governor.

If we intend to show to the people of Korea that the American brand of democracy is as beneficial as we claim it is, we should demonstrate it in terms of governmental efficiency and economic well-being and not with hollow sounding phrases as we have been doing until recently. The U. S. has shipped great amounts of relief goods to Korea, but no country can live on relief alone. It cannot be denied that American efforts in Korea have been hampered by the lack of cooperation from our allies, shortage of trained personnel, and internal dissension among the political parties. These difficulties, however, have only been incidental. The main cause for our trusteeship over the U. S. zone of Korea not having complete success has been the lack of a vital and definite political and economic policy which would be adaptable to the constantly changing local scene. There has been a tendency among the American officers in Korea to regard that country as a minor point in comparison with the Japanese question. Such is not the case. Korea is an important factor in the balance of power in Eastern Asia, and the prestige of the U. S. can rise or fall significantly with our actions there.

The people of the entire Far East are watching closely our actions in Korea. The success or failure of the U. S. economic policy, and the amount of cooperation between the United States and the Soviet Union in that country, will have an important influence on the history of the Far Pacific in years to come.

Marxism and Federalism: Part II

by Thomas L. Hughes

THIS IS THE final half of a lecture delivered by Mr. Hughes before the Student Federalists' Institute in Chicago last fall. The first part was published in the first issue of the JOURNAL.

In that section, Mr. Hughes emphasized that although the Marxian doctrine is many things to to many people, the dialectic is basic for all. In essence, this is the theory of struggle which impels all the historical process. In each age, the dominant economic class (thesis) calls forth its antithesis; these forces then combine into a synthesis which in turn produces its class rival. The process finally ends in the proletarian classless society. The problem arises at once as to the place of ethical aims in such a philosophy, emphasizing as it does economic forces. The partial solution lies in the fact that the dialectic was a campaign tactic for world revolution as well as a philosophy of history and thus concerned with rallying the mass of workers to the Marxian standard.

As an outgrowth of this final synthesis, Marx considered nationalism and its instrument — war — the prerogative of the bourgeois class. He, and Lenin, even welcomed war as hastening the debilitation of the capitalist class and the rise of the proletariat.

Turning to practical applications of Marxism, Mr. Hughes described the result of the Russian Revolution of October 1917, engineered by professed orthodox Marxists: a distinctive brand of *Russian* Communism, combining nationalism with collectivism. As Mr. Hughes said, *the Revolution placed at the helm of this potentially powerful national state men who were committed to the most starkly realistic doctrine of internationalism that modern times have conceived.* Thus a new paradox in international politics: is international communism but a tool of Russian nationalism; or, as the orthodox Marxists would have us believe, is the opposite true?

—THE EDITORS

III—EVALUATION OF MARXISM'S CURRENT WORLD SIGNIFICANCE

(*a*) *"Right vs. Left" in 1947*

The awkward thing, from a Marxian standpoint, is that if we look at the world in the terms Marxists think are decisive — that of shifts in class power and economic institutions — the outlook is promising. All over Europe, in Britain, and Asia, the bourgeoisie is on the run. From the viewpoint of the significant factors that Marxism stresses, the world should be closer to socialism today than ever before.

The historical process to which the Left has traditionally looked for progress has been going on, but the result is often not progress but the reverse. The Marxian notion of historical reality and the Marxian revolutionary values seem to have come into conflict; the course of Marx's historical dialectic seems to be leading us *away* from socialism as Marx conceived it. Reforms are being made, but often go hand in hand with a moral barbarism and threats of world annihilation. Private capitalism is perhaps decaying universally, and the bourgeoisie are perhaps being expropriated everywhere, but some thinking souls have suggested lately that new and even more oppressive forms of government are taking their place.

As Dwight Macdonald, who calls himself a socialist, wrote in *Politics* recently:

> "We are off balance . . . The process on which Marx banked so heavily is being brought about from the top, not the bottom, and is directed towards nationalism and war. The result is not the liberation of the masses but their even more complete enslavement, not the coming of the Kingdom of Freedom, but the creation of an even more crushing Kingdom of Necessity. The external process is working out, but the inner spirit is the reverse of what Marx expected. The operation is a success, but the patient is dying."

For one thing, we need a new political vocabulary. "Right vs. Left" has become meaningless. A force has arisen to blur the distinction and make

most political antagonisms academic. Recall some recent headlines:

> A putsch by fascist-minded Army officers overthrew the former conservative regime in Bolivia, backed by native big business and the U. S. State Department. The revolutionaries were anti-U. S. A., anti-capitalist, and anti-semitic. When they took power, they shot one of the 'big-three' tin magnates, passed Bolivia's first laws favoring the exploited Indian tin miners, and strengthened the Army. Currently in Argentina we see the pro-Nazi, dictatorial Army boss, Peron, leading a working-class movement against the bourgeoisie, decreeing enormous wage advances, trampling on property rights, and getting himself overwhelmingly elected president in the first honest election in years. The opposing candidate, Tamborini, was backed by Argentine big business, the U. S. State Department, and the *Nation* magazine!

It is revealing to compare Left-Right attitudes in the two world wars. In World War I these attitudes were fairly consistent in themselves and cleanly opposed to each other. The Right was chauvinist — after all, as the ruling class, they felt it was *their* country — and favored the war for the most straight-forward economic motives. (It is perhaps significant that in this war we have heard nothing about the much-vaunted "Merchants of Death".) The bulk of the Left submitted to the "necessity" of war in 1914 and 1917, since it was unwilling to take a revolutionary anti-war stand; but its attitude was passive, rather shamefaced. Before the first war the Right was militarist and favored an aggressive foreign policy, while the Left was generally pacifist and anti-imperialist. After that war, the Right pressed for a Carthaginian peace and emphasized the collective responsibility of the German people, while the Left tried to lighten reparations and to limit war guilt to the German ruling classes.

The situation in World War II was much more complex, because in the interim two phenomena had arisen which cut across the old alignments: Hitlerism and Stalinism. The Franco-Anglo-American bourgeoisie had seen the Kaiser's Germany as simply an imperialistic competitor, but towards Hitler they had an ambivalent attitude. Insofar as he was a powerful competitor, they opposed him, but they supported him insofar as he had created an "orderly" society by liquidating his own Left and insofar as he seemed to be preparing war against the U.S.S.R. They put up with his aggressions, therefore, and failed to arm against him. On the other hand, they didn't trust him enough to join him in a war against Russia, as the Marxists (and evidently, Hitler, too) had supposed they would. They correctly saw that Nazism was something new and dangerous to them, not just an extreme form of monopoly capitalism. So they were unable to act at all.

The Left was also paralyzed by the cross-currents set up by events of the '20's and '30's which didn't fit into the old Left-Right pattern. On the one hand, the Left opposed Hitler for the same reasons the Right favored him, and demanded "collective security" and a firm stand against Nazi aggression. At the same time, the disillusionment with World War I was still enough to make its general feeling about war negative; also, its whole tradition was anti-war. When war came, however, it was the traditionally war-hating Left which was enthusiastic, while the traditionally bellicose Right went into the fray with much the same reluctance the Left had shown in World War I, and for much the same reasons: they could see no way to avoid it, and yet they felt that their class interests would not be advanced by it. The Left, furthermore, was able to prosecute the war more effectively because the high degree of State control a modern war demands fitted in better with its ideology. So in this country, the Left, which in the early '30's had applauded the Nye committee's exposure of the merchants of death, became increasingly belligerent after FDR's Chicago "Quarantine" speech in 1937, while the Republican Right was almost solidly isolationist. The British Tories were the architects of Munich; it took the collaboration of the Labor Party plus its best leadership to put any real vigor and heart into the British war effort the first year of the war.

The same reversal may be observed in postwar policies in the United States. The so-called Right favors a relatively "soft-peace", partly because it never believed in the war as an anti-fascist crusade, and partly because it hopes to make Germany a barrier to Russian advances; while the Left insists on the collective responsibility of the German people, and presses for vengeance. The CIO, like the British TUC, has put on record its belief in the war guilt of the German *people*. It is Rightists, shall we say, like President Hutchins of the University of Chicago, who express indignation at the extremes to which the victors are going in Germany; the Rightist Republican Senators Wherry and Shipstead make speeches about our policy of starving Europe especially Germany. It is the liberal Democratic Senator Kilgore who defends the use of German slave labor, and it is Eleanor Roosevelt who commends Louis Nizer's racial tirade against Germans and minimizes the current starvation in

Germany. The actual proposals for postwar Germany of the reactionary German-baiter Vansittart, are postively humane compared with those of the New Dealer, Morgenthau, while the leftist newspaper, PM, has far outstripped the Hearst press in its hate-the-Germans-and-Japs campaign. On the issue of conscription, it is the Right Republican Senator Taft who leads the fight against it, and the Republican floor leader in the House, Martin, who proposes an international agreement to abolish conscription; while the Democratic liberals, led by the President, line up behind the General Staff in favor of conscription.

I am not expressing any conclusions on any of these issues when I say that the distinction between "Right" and "Left" has become meaningless. What kind of aims does the Left — both reformists and revolutionists — actually have? They want full production, nationalization, planning, and above all security, of both the social and national varieties. There is nothing in these demands incompatible with the interests of the ruling class in organizing a strong nation to compete militarily with other nations. There are antagonisms, it is true, sharp and sporadic battles. But these clashes are on secondary issues; they do not affect the trend towards war and national regimentation. The struggle is not over a new kind of society, but over who is to dominate the existing society, the Old Guard, or the Tribunes of the People. It is becoming increasingly naive to distinguish the Right from the Left.

(*b*) *Nationalism and War: Marxist Dilemma.*

Marx spent most of his life investigating the "laws of motion" of capitalism. This investment was justified by his assumption that if he could show, as he did in his dialectic, that these laws were working to destroy capitalism, he had also demonstrated the "iron necessity" of socialism. Yet (1) the workingclass has "come of age" without advancing us toward socialist goals, per se; (2) a great shift away from capitalism is taking place without advancing us any further toward those socialist goals; (3) modern war, far from offering "revolutionary opportunities" for socialism, is creating new conditions which make the struggle for socialism even more difficult.

Marxism regards war as a means to an end, a method of advancing certain definite class interests; as a means it is subordinated to its end, so that if the destruction it causes seems likely to exceed the gains to those groups using this means, they will presumably not use the means. There is implied in this whole view a certain rationality, even moderation and limit, to warfare, so that one can say that a given war may offer a "revolutionary opportunity" or that the victory of one side may be more advantageous to the cause of socialism than the victory of the other.

The truth of these ideas might have gone unexamined at the time Marx wrote. Now, however, war has become almost an end in itself. Instead of advancing certain class or national interests at the expense of others, war tends more and more to make the situation of the victors indistinguishable from that of the defeated, as in Europe today. The effect of the technical measures that must be taken to fight a modern war has become more important than any political effect of the war's outcome. In reality, war appears to have lost its rationality, so that one might say there will probably be a third world war because there has been a second. The existence of powerful warmaking apparatus, with economies and social institutions deformed to support them, and the quite justified fears of every nation of attack from every other — these factors are the key to the problem, rather than the expansive needs of capitalist imperialism or the "contradictions" between Soviet collectivism and American free enterprise — which exist, but are not as automatic in their effects as some Marxists like to think.

The critical corollary for Marxism is that modern warfare is so insanely destructive that the seeds of a new order are wiped out along with the old. The failure of anything to come out of the European resistance movement shows that the masses are at the moment incapable of political effort. Nerves twisted by saturation-bombing raids, feelings numbed by massacre and suffering, vigor snapped by too little food for too many years — out of these will not arise a proletariat able and willing to "expropriate the expropriators."

Furthermore, in recent years the capitalist, motivated by rationalistic profit and loss considerations, fears the risk of war much more than the military man, the government official, or even the idealistic liblab. In Japan, the big-business Zaibatsu were the peace party; it was the militarists, basing themselves on the peasant conscripts and playing a demagogically "popular" game against the big-business politicians, who pushed Japan along its imperialist path after 1932. Not only has it become impossible, therefore, to fit modern war into the Marxian framework, but a reverse action has also taken place: war has had a shattering effect on the framework!

Nationalism now bends the class struggle to its own ends. Under the war system socialists should not be the last ones in the world to recognize that their ideological enemies, the "ruling class", particularly if it has the power socialists say it has, can monopolize more and more the will of the masses

— not just in time of hostilities, but continually. They may use the appeal for unity against outside attack, and the more portentous the threat, the greater the appeal. This weapon is powerful psychologically, because it plays on very deep fears and loyalties. It is powerful too in rational terms, because it is perfectly true that national defeat is catastrophic for *all* classes. Thus the strongest appeal of the Nazis in the terrible final year of the war was their picture of what the consequences of defeat would be for the German people. The Nazis appear to have been quite right in their predictions.

It is true that Mussolini was demagogic when he transposed the "class struggle" theme by speaking of "proletarian nations" like Italy whose hope lay in rebellion against "bourgeois nations" like England, stifling at the same time his own Italian workingclass movement the better to fight what might be — demagogically — called the "international class struggle." But he was not *just* being demagogic. Nor was Hitler when he joined those hitherto warring concepts "national" and "socialism". Everywhere, the class struggle *inside* nations is yielding to struggle between nations, so that the main conflict nowadays is between peoples and not between exploiters and exploited. You remember Emery Reeves' pithy analysis in *The Anatomy of Peace*:

> "England and Germany were both capitalist when they went to war. Nor was the United States Communist when it was attacked by Japan. The one major cause of the development of the Soviet Union into a powerful centralized state and not into a 'withering away' of that state, is that there were *other* sovereign units in existence outside the U.S.S.R. and that as long as there are *several* sovereign power units, several national sovereignties, they are bound to conflict, no matter what their internal economic or social systems. And irrespective of their systems, these units are irresistibly driven to strengthen their own national power. We could put a Communist in the White House or establish the purest Jeffersonian democracy in Russia, and the situation would be the same."

The truth is that neither individualist capitalism nor collective socialism can work within the nation-state structure. Even the ranks of the Communist International are not immune. For example, the Italian Communist Pietro Togliatti, like most Italians, has opposed the claims of Communist Marshal Tito of Yugoslavia for Trieste and Venezia Giulia. The French Communist stalwart, Jacques Duclos has supported, like General de Gaulle, France's demand for international control of the Ruhr, which is opposed by German Communists. The more responsibility and influence the Communists have gained in Europe, the less they have tended to present a united front in world affairs.

Communists as well as everyone else know perfectly well that as long as military power remains a determining factor in relations between nations, there is bound to be a struggle to obtain every scrap that can enhance a nation's material strength and prestige. The nation-state system constantly works against the tendency toward rationally planned economics within communities. It is good Stalinist doctrine that the growth of socialism in Russia has been frustrated and stymied by threats from abroad. The hope that a perpetuation of economic and political chaos in the world might eventually set the stage for proletarian revolutions elsewhere which would thus reduce the dangers Russia fears from abroad, has proved to be a risky, if not forlorn, hope. Can Russia herself afford the risk involved in delaying world controls over potential instruments of world destruction, particularly when other nations, harried by the same threats and suspicious of Soviet motives, may seek other than peaceful means for settlement as well? Indeed, the reverse aspect should give the Soviets equal pause: let them remember that the so-called "Communist menace" bore a very direct influence on the rise of fascism in Germany and Italy, and the rise of fascism can hardly be twisted to the advantage of the proletariat anywhere.

Now that the national state has become the great menace and war and foreign policy the great issues, the "realistic" attitude that has always distinguished Marx and his followers has became quite unrealistic, if one's aim is not effective warmaking or the furtherance of nationalistic ambitions. No nation has a rational choice that is not limited by the problems that war poses. Even if the Soviet Union did not feel morally obligated to perform a world mission, still her choices would be limited to three: to risk destruction, to attempt a Pax Sovietica world-wide imperialism, or to agree to peace under world law. America's alternatives are identical — annihilation, Pax Americana, or world government.

We are living in an age of sub-rationalism. If I were a Marxist I would have been convinced long ago that economic and social questions called for *rational solutions*. Marxism, though it inspires fervor and devotion, is formulated on *rational* precepts and must rely on them for enduring validity. Marxism today is caught, just as the world is caught, among the *irrational* forces of conflicting nationalisms. Everything we have in the way of trends

gives warning that Marxism, no matter where, cannot work for its Marxist goals so long as nationalism remains as an unbridled force that threatens to subvert our economic and social futures, or destroy those futures entirely by physical annihilation. If I were a Marxist, in the interest of my creed I would want to clear the international field for an economic approach to economic problems. This is impossible as long as economists must clear their plans through War Departments.

IV—MARXISTS AND FEDERALISTS: WHAT COMMON GROUND?

(*a*) *Marxism — Reactionary?*

By endeavoring to cling to the absolute superficialities of a 19th century attitude toward war, Marxists are defeating the best in their heritage of critical thinking. They are committing an error which Marx, Engels and Lenin never would have duplicated — they blind themselves to changed conditions and critical contemporary problems. Marxists today are in danger of becoming reactionaries. The dialectic left no room for a force strong enough to kill historical materialism or turn it into new channels. Yet nationalism has done precisely that. It has turned the dialectic back upon itself, and is steering proletariat and bourgeoisie alike off to destruction.

Marx would have been the first to admit that there is no virtue in worshipping the past on the wrong grounds. Marx himself, as he once said, was not a Marxist. His program has often been called a "theology", however, and if Marxists insist on upholding a naive attitude toward war merely to preserve the sacred inviolability of their creed, they are open to the same charge some of them like to throw at theologians:

> "Our fathers have been Churchmen
> Nineteen hundred years or so;
> And to every new proposal,
> They have always answered NO."

Between federalists and Marxists there ought to be a reconcilable mutual faith in a resounding call for a new society. Such a call is consonant with Marx's praise of "formidable realism." A relentless application of the "arms of criticism" might cause Marx's adherents today to restate in terms of the present world the question of social transformation — changing theories when theories fail, inventing new tactics where the old are proved useless, and by so doing, do what Marx himself would surely have had to do, had he faced with us the predicaments of contemporary affairs.

(*b*) *Practicality of a Federalist Proposal.*

(1) Ideological Hindrances.

Ideological hindrances to an offer of federalism from the West to Russia, while I believe they are mostly psychological, nevertheless raise the problem of a difficult strategic retreat in the minds of Russian Marxists. Superficially, it might seem to them to be the easiest thing in the world for the United States and Britain, for instance, to make a world government proposal. Their logic would go as follows — In making such an offer the Western "Allies" have nothing to lose. They do not have to withdraw or retract their so-called national philosophies. Avaricious capital is up to its old game. They ask us for approval of an international readjustment which means burying permanently much that has been the most dynamic and effective of Marxist propaganda for half a decade. If the fatherland of the proletariat bends its knee to bourgeois proposals, we lose the faith — all over the world — of those for whom we fight. The Kremlin would probably see fit then to announce in *Pravda* that the federalist proposal represented a last-ditch effort of bourgeois individuals like Mr. Churchill to save a decadent imperialism and perpetuate the status quo under the guise of an international security system.

And who, for instance, are the ideological founding fathers of "Federalist" proposals? The Kremlin would surely list the American Federalists, whom we incidentally are forever quoting, and who represent and epitomize everything Marxism detests — Alexander Hamilton with his "the people, Sir, is a beast"; John Adams, who stated the class struggle in quite un-Marxian terms, "There are two clases, the gentlemen and the simplemen."

A proposal for world government coming from the west to Russia must surely not be couched in terms of hidden significance; this seems to me to be one of the major defections in the psychological implications of the Baruch proposals, for instance. A real world government offer must, I think, go out of its way to appeal to the Marxian tradition, regardless of the wild cries bound to ensue from Gerald Smith under such conditions. The technical terms of the proposal are as far out of our reach here as is the proposal itself, but I think we may say that the spirit and context in which the proposition is presented would be crucial, if sincere consideration of the proposal by the Soviets is desired.

In accepting an offer of world government, Marxists would have to concur with John Dewey in this measured criticism of the dialectic: "The theory of class struggle is an exaggeration; to say that social progress is really made through cooperation within organized society is more reasonable."

They would also be acknowledging the truth expressed by Mortimer Adler: "To think that there will be no need for government when no exploiters are left, is to forget that though exploiters try to use government for their purposes, nothing but government can protect a just economy, once established, from the rise of a new exploiting class." — if Stalin has not already convinced his fellows of this truism!

Yet in another sense, federalists do not proclaim as much faith in the miracles of institutionalism as Marx himself did at one point in his works: he took a leap of faith way beyond ours, when he proclaimed that the institutional change from a bourgeois to a classless society would work a change in human nature that is truly phenomenal. People would "acquire the habit" of behaving in society, of "living together in real freedom" without the control of law, and state machinery would "wither away" because it would be unnecessary. On this point of dogma Marxists show themselves to be greater utopians than the worst legalists. They claim that their single institutional change ipso facto transforms the human wills in their society, while federalists have never pretended that institutions are more than what history has proved them to be — necessary forms enabling men to work through law to decide their disputes without force.

A final ideological hindrance to a friendly Soviet response to a world government offer lies in the economic sphere. Although an offer of federation might at first be limited to the control of atomic energy, instruments of war, etc., it could not long postpone consideration of pressing international economic and social problems. The Russians would again be faced with an unresolved Marxian dilemma.

The Kremlin would undoubtedly criticise a purely political federation, with no duties but armament control and no obligation but to preserve the status quo, for its failure to deal with the economic and social frictions between and within nations. Yet that argument is a debater's proposition. It has not been validated that the Soviet Government has itself been willing to participate in the various international functional organizations which might constitute an approach to economic and social frictions. For example, though the U.S.S.R. *has* joined the United Nations for purposes of "peace and security", she has not yet joined the International Monetary Fund and the Bank for Reconstruction and Development, nor the United Nations Food and Agricultural Organization; nor the Provisional International Civil Aviation Organization; nor the United Nations Educational, Scientific and Cultural Organization; nor the Emergency Economic Committee for Europe; nor the European Coal Organization.

The difficulty is perhaps a hangover from the chronic intra-party Marxist disputes between the Revisionists and Revolutionists, which we mentioned previously. A government of the revisionist Marxian type, such as the present British Labor Party, is willing to tackle economic problems at home and in the world by piecemeal attempts, the "techniques of gradualism." The Leninist-Revolutionist theory, on the other hand, has consistently ridiculed the revisionist approach as treason to the class war and playing into the hands of the bourgeoisie. Current international functional organizations may have been spurned by the Soviet Union on the grounds that such moves tend to mollify the class struggle, whereas the struggle should be aggravated in order to conform with the demands of the dialectic. It would appear that this is another point of theology which must be left to the Marxists themselves to solve.

(2) Grounds for Hope

It is commonly assumed that the reason Russia proposed the veto power at Dumbarton Oaks and agreed to FDR's proposal for the same thing at Yalta was that she feared that the Western powers would some day attack her unless she could, by her own vote, prevent an unanimous decision in the Security Council. But surely, if all the powers are prepared to launch a war against the Soviet Union they would not be deterred by Russia's own vote against such action. If there were any sincere basis whatever for these fears, the men of the Kremlin, as realists, surely know that they have more to fear now with the bombs ready and waiting in bourgeois citadels, than they would under a world government in which they would have an effective voice, rather than a useless veto.

What are the indications, if any, that give us grounds for hope that a world government proposal might not be rejected abruptly by Moscow? For what they are worth, the following points have bearing in our discussion:

First, it is well known that the U.S.S.R. is extremely conscious of American public opinion. As J. Alvarez del Vayo said in one of his despatches to the *Nation* in August, 1946:

> "The Soviet government is fully aware of the growth of anti-Russian feeling in the West during the last six months. Talking to many Russians who had never left Moscow, I might easily have believed that they had just stepped out of a plane from Washington. American opinion is followed with extreme care."

Second, there are indications that the fervor for world revolution among the Russians is not at fever

pitch. Harrison Salisbury, former chief of the United Press Bureau in Russia, says in his recent book:

> "Certainly among the ordinary Russian people there could hardly be less interest in communism as an article for export . . . While the Russian press analyzes foreign events from the Marxist viewpoint, it never suggests that 'come the revolution' all this will be changed . . . The press liberally reports the various measures of expropriation and land distribution carried out in Poland and Yugoslavia, but always suggests that these are long-overdue reforms rather than first steps toward communism."

Third, all Soviet diplomatic moves seem to be marked by an effort to calculate chances. This was the hope that John Foster Dules raised in his articles in *Life* last June:

> "Soviet representatives have sometimes taken extreme positions, but Stalin has pulled back and relieved the tension when unexpected opposition was encountered. That indicates that Soviet policy is subject to change if it can be made clear to Soviet leaders that that policy will not promote the safety of the Soviet Union. From the standpoint of action, the course is clear, We must act on the assumption that we *can* do something to bring Soviet leaders to change their foreign program. It is the only working hypothesis."

It should be added that as long as we unilaterally try to force the Kremlin to change its policy, the results are dubious. Quite a different matter would be an effort on our part, through a proposal for world government, which would involve identical changes of policy for all governments concerned.

Raymond Swing gives us the only conclusion possible from a standpoint of action when he says:

> "What it would do to Soviet policy if the United States and the British, by full popular consent, pledged themselves to the abolition of war through world government, no one can say. If it were convincingly done, it would end Russian fear. What Russian policy would be with fear removed, no one can say. But no one is entitled to say now that Russia without fear would refuse to help establish a world of law above nations."

(*c*) *Decisions for America.*

I am not optimistic. I believe I am not crazy, and if I am not then it should be evident that there are times when reality makes optimism ridiculous. I am not optimistic because I am convinced that ultimate responsibility for world government ,if we are to have it in time, rests with America, and I am conscious of the job we have ahead of *us*.

One thing this country *should* know — and that is that we cannot afford to let things drift into another war. Perhaps we do not fully realize what a critical situation even the very problem of Marxism would give us if we were to risk war with the U.S.S.R. The liberal and labor elements in this country, which were in the front ranks of the war against Nazi Germany and militarist Japan, would be bereft of any clear purpose and psychologically hamstrung should war break out between the West and Russia. I agree with my friend Henry Wallace when he calls talk of such a war "criminal". If I mention it, I do not speak of it as an eventuality to be contemplated but as a warning to this country that we cannot abdicate our world responsibilities and hope to escape catastrophe. And by world responsibilities I mean more than sending aircraft carriers into the Mediterranean. I mean taking the lead diplomatically to break the vise of nationalist rivalry while we still have time.

Meanwhile, to my Marxist friends I would issue what seems to be a reasonable challenge, as well as an invitation, to join with us in the effort to awaken America to the issues upon which her fate depends. I would ask these people as rational beings to recognize that our future is no longer guaranteed, and progress is no longer indefinitely assured. Since Marx's time his dialectic has turned on its heels; progress and destruction are pushing ahead on parallel lines under the same bracket of scientific achievement. The Marxian concept of the future, so powerful an element in traditional socialist thought, has temporarily lost its validity. We now confront the actual, scientific possibility of THE END being written to human affairs. World government alone has a chance of diminishing the terrors that nationalism presents. To the extent that federalism is successful, it would admittedly curb *nationalist* stimulus for the Russian-Communist drive. At the same time, however, world government would for the first time in history clear the field for a rational, world-wide approach to the economic and social problems which Marxism rightly insists are basic in human relations. The Communist movement itself could grow on its rational merits or lose on its rational defects, without needing to sacrifice its principles for the sake of military security or protective expansion.

The ideal of a world under law is a generality that still glitters. Only when we have it can we hold out hope for that kind of future which Mr. Churchill saw in one of his better moments — when "all will be well and proud in our island . . ." and men everywhere will break into "broader lands and better days."

Book Reviews

TORY RADICAL

By Cecil Driver —*Oxford*

With this excellent first book, Professor Driver has done more than write an exciting but scholarly biography of an historical figure now generally neglected: *Tory Radical* includes as well the story of one phase of English working class history. It is the record of a developing social conscience in individuals and nation — of the effort to inject into society a consideration of the social welfare to halt the excesses into which early *laissez-faire* industrialism had led itself.

Richard Oastler, both Tory and Radical, was a central figure in a strange group of early nineteenth century proletarian leaders, each possessed of different motivations for leadership. Oastler himself, representing such diverse influences as Wesleyanism, the Wilberforce Emancipation movement, and later outright Toryism and Anglicanism, burst upon the Yorkshire industrial scene in 1830 as the new-found champion of the friendless and overworked factory children. He became and remained the standard bearer of a ten-hours bill for those children until the end. It was a time of vital interest in political and social questions expressed in countless tracts and editorials, in mobs and mass meetings, and in crusades of every description. *Laissez-faire* political economy was ingrained in the national thought processes; convictions were strong and issues clearcut. One's opponents were blackguards and treasonous devils; on the political scene Oastler saw "the drama of good and evil locked in mortal combat". Professor Driver has sensed and well expressed this undercurrent of human excitement, effort, and hope running through his narrative and rising to the surface in such episodes as the "pilgrimage to York" and the successive "rousings of the North."

Oastler's career encompassed changing conceptions of charity and social reform. He first attacked the symptoms of social disease, working against suffering and poverty individually and locally with his own hands as well as with voluntary contributions, but after 1830 his effort was to return the question of social welfare to its rightful place in public policy. Because he appeared early in the history of modern industrialism and hence had first to overcome the deadweight of the economists' opposition to social reform, he met with seventeen years of defeat until the 1847 Ten Hours Act brought victory. And the efforts of Oastler and his comrades are illustrative of the discouraging difficulties in the way of initial unification of proletarian opinion and pressure.

He was a man at once the product of his times and a leader striving to implement personal convictions. As a public figure Oastler came to think in terms of two goals, the first a specific limitation on the hours of industrial work for children, the second a personal conception of Toryism that foreshadowed the later ideas of Disraeli and his Young Englanders. This is how he could be both Tory and Radical; this is why he was misunderstood and misplaced in the classifications of his contemporaries; this is what makes Oastler a fascinating person.

He was a man of powerful abilities and definite limitations. Economics he distrusted and abhorred; politics he frequently misunderstood; but on social issues Oastler shone. He early discovered the remarkable gifts for oratory and mass leadership that gave him the title of "Factory King" and he had a staunch devotion to his cause that lasted until the victory was won. But it is perhaps his limitations and his individual discordances with the main current of nineteenth century radicalism that make him all the more interesting a person.

Oastler's Toryism was an effective bar to a realization that social and political reform were to go hand in hand. He had no understanding of the democratic process or of gradual social progress or of the function of party in parliamentary government. He was hampered by his steadfast refusal to compromise. Briefly, "he thought of government in essentially executive terms". This, with the Toryism of which it was part and parcel, explains his opposition to the Reform Bill of 1832 and his protracted longing for a strong leader who would restore society's social conscience at one fell swoop. Oastler frequently chose to work outside the regular processes of government: for example, his reaction to Althorp's Factory Act of 1833 and in his conception of a "People's Lobby" for Parliament. In this, as in his later tolerance of anti-capi-

talist violence, he may well have deserved the accusation of being "un-English."

But these things are explained by the fact that he was concerned with the reform of society itself, rather than with the perfecting of the machinery of government as an indirect means to that end. He saw Chartism as well as the popular opposition to the New Poor Law as evidence of a general dissatisfaction with the destruction of the harmony of pre-industrial England. For him Chartism was only further evidence of this more general social protest, over and above its professed aims. He looked at deeds and present policies rather than at processes. It was his lack of patience and lack of faith in democracy that explains his urging violence if government as then constituted refused to deliver the changes he demanded. But by 1849 the positions had been reversed; Oastler was then on the side of stability and the enforcing of present laws and was counseling "moral-force tactics". While typifying honesty and courage in a public leader he remained an essentially naive, blunt, and open person. He was led on by this naiveness and directness to attempt in his thinking to apply unadulterated, literal Christian doctrine to his judgments of modern industrial society.

It is Richard Oastler's Tory philosophy, labeled by Professor Driver "The Faith of a Tory", which makes him individually important. With it he began his challenging crusade against the all-pervasive *laissez-faire,* which to him was "a policy that resulted in the abnegation of all social purposiveness by elevating economic anarchy into a moral value . . ." It was his aim to heal the breach between Disraeli's "Two Nations" by re-introducing into English society the principle of social obligation. He proposed to secure social welfare by enforcing a social system based on obligation, cooperation, and order, all working in opposition to individualism and its discord. He emphasized the value of institutions which formed national and personal character, institutions justifying themselves so long as they fulfilled the obligations of their preeminence.

It was after his release from prison in 1844 that this program began to loom larger and larger in Richard Oastler's speeches and thoughts. He became a full time social prophet. The unavoidable conclusion seems to be that it was precisely his devotion to his brand of Toryism plus the 1847 victory that caused him to lose his place as an active working class leader. For Oastler was accepted and understood by his proletarian followers primarily for his ten hours enthusiasm rather than for his Tory philosophy. When working men began to seek their salvation through long-range political reconstruction, their "Factory King" could no longer lead them.

Oastler's conceptions of Tory Democracy, however understandable in the light of English history, involve a basic unawareness of the full impact of the Industrial Revolution upon English society, and a futile and rather pathetic longing to turn back the clock to a legendary "Merrie England" of centuries past and gone. He was deceived by the myth of a happier past which had been primarily an agricultural age; he sought refuge from industrialism in "the ancient principles and the ancient ways." Thus, paradoxically, Oastler had led in the beginnings of modern social reform while conceiving of his work as a return to a pre-Industrial Revolution England.

J. R. F.

YOU'RE THE BOSS

By Edward J. Flynn —*Viking*

Americans are reputed always to sympathize with the underdog, which explains popular favoritism toward such institutions as the Brooklyn Dodgers and the South Carolina Republicans. But there is one phase of American life which has been the almost constant and unanimous object of abuse: the political machine. The latest of these attacks, and a particularly vituperative one, appeared in Robert Allen's *Our Fair City,* which painted the portrait of local government entirely in vivid blacks and whites, elevating the independent and "reformer" candidate to the top rung of the political ladder. Col. Allen's writers left only unscrupulously gained power as a solace to the party machine.

Finally, a machine boss has given us the other side of the story. Edward J. Flynn, for twenty-five years Democratic leader of the Bronx and long-time National Committeeman, has written of his own career and thus he has also written a primer of the facts of political life. *You're The Boss* is not merely a back-to-the-wall defense of his lifetime profession because Mr. Flynn is never on the defensive. His aim, and his success, is an exposition of the purposes and methods of the party machine and of its proper place in the national political perspective.

The basic fallacy which surrounds our evaluation of the machine is not so much an unfavorable conclusion derived from well-known facts as it is a complete misinterpretation of or a refusal to believe these facts. The artificial separation of the aims of all political organization from the neces-

sary methods which will gain these ends leads to much of the confusion.

Most people want primarily efficient administration from local government, but an efficiency which is always responsive to popular demands and an administration which centers responsibility on one man who can be removed from power by popular ballots. This is the almost unanimous desire even if different people want various policies to be administered. It is not true that there is no difference between a Republican and a Democratic way of cleaning the streets — the difference is in the extent and the cost of this or any other government service. But the efficiency with which either partisan policy is carried out has the same meaning in dollar and cents terms and in relation to public insistence on one policy or the other. When we arrive at the aims of political organization, the consistent next step would be to accept the methods which can accomplish these aims and still leave government democratic. But this is just the point at which the most vocal critics of governmental efficiency refuse to sanction the methods of the political machine.

The machine is made to order for satisfying the demands both of efficiency and responsibility. The strong party organization can get results by the use of such mechanisms as the spoils system and insistence on strict internal discipline. For a consistent paper policy to be made an active and successful one in practice, it necessarily follows that the department heads, the committee members and the rank administrators should be of a mind with the responsible party chiefs.

If efficiency is demanded by the business-man in our natures, the desire for responsibility is a result of our training in the entire philosophy of representative democracy. Again the machine fills the bill by centering responsibility for both success and failure. In the famous Tammany machine of Charles Murphy — and in Ed Flynn's Bronx organization today — every party policy can be traced directly through the precinct captain and bureau chief to the boss himself. Up and down the line, the machine is ordered according to a yardstick of agreement on policy and a forced adherence to the party line — until, that is, a majority of regular party members decide to change the policy and the leadership. There have been and always will be bad machines but not because of any inherent fault in the philosophy of machine politics itself. The public shame is in the fact that there exist mechanisms to insure popular control of the machine and yet they are used little or not at all. The party primary has not the glamor of the general election, but that lack of appeal is amply compensated for in its importance as the controlling force of the party returned in the final balloting. The great potential of machine politics will never be realized as long as the boss and his methods remain as outcasts from polite society and so long as the instruments of constant popular participation in government are neglected.

The strongest case made for machine politics by Mr. Flynn is, in the last analysis, the unintentional but vivid self-portrait which fills every page of his book. In writing his times, Mr. Flynn has inevitably written himself, just as surely as if the book were frankly autobiographical. The man who appears is the ideally loyal party member. His whole career has been spent in aiding other men, men in whom he sincerely believes, to political eminence. Ed Flynn could aptly be called the modern American king-maker although he would be the first to deny his own importance in advancing such men as Al Smith and Franklin Roosevelt to power. But the story is all here: of his unswerving support to Smith and Roosevelt as governors of New York, of his work in engineering the first nomination of Roosevelt to the presidency, of his insistence to the 1944 national delegates that they follow the lead of their chief in nominating Truman as vice-president. For once, the account of a career of selflessness in poltics rings true.

Not the least of his qualities is the sincerity and loyalty with which Mr. Flynn approaches party policy and his own convictions. With all this taken into account, the party machine, whose cause he defends, rises in stature as a potential force toward sound and honest government when a machine boss can record the story of a life so well spent.

C. M. L.

STRUGGLE FOR GERMANY

By Russell Hill —*Harper*

Out of a confusion of conflicting ideologies, policies and personal observations, Russell Hill has been able to build an eminently readable book which serves at least to clarify for the American reader the principal elements of the *Struggle For Germany*. Inevitably, the problem is drawn against the background of Russian-American relations — but this is as it should be. For no single phase of international politics can today be considered as completely self-contained. Always the shadow of two-power disagreement is cast on world issues, and none too vaguely in Germany. There we have a working example of America's Soviet relations and of the dominating role which they play in any possible settlement.

It has become common to hear of how the German question is affecting great-power relations, but all too seldom are the tables reversed. The story of the havoc being wrought in Germany, as her very real economic and political problems are being used as diplomatic footballs, is discouraging if the stakes are considered. Success in Germany might well form the foundation of central European peace — unarmed peace — for decades to come. But failure would surely cast the world again into the dismal watchful waiting of 1920-1939.

Success in Germany, for Mr. Hill, is predicated on certain primarily economic grounds. If Germany, and with it all Europe, is to revive itself as a prosperous and comparatively self-sufficient nation, the artificial barriers of four-power zone control must be eliminated. Any integrated plan for the recovery of the German economy is, of course, impossible in a country split four ways with no semblance of reason but rather because of military facility.

Success, then, in Germany implies a nation strong enough to prosper reasonably and yet weak enough so that it will never again threaten the world as an aggressor nation. A fine line has to be drawn between this strength and weakness. And many considerations, not yet traditional to the American mind, must be weighed before setting industrial potentials and production quotas. The most important of these considerations is that although we may handle German rehabilitation in such a way that "there might never be another German war . . . that would not necessarily be the end of wars." Certainly not France, and possibly not the United States, has been shaken from the century-old fear of a German resurgence which would again be a threat along the Rhine. Thus, the French government and such men as Henry Morgenthau, Jr. counsel sweeping de-industrialization.

Mr. Hill wisely sees that the problem cannot be so summarily dismissed. Curbs on industrial revitalization, yes; but curbs applied on industries which would feed a war machine. Unless German industrial labor and the country itself can be metamorphosed into farm labor and farm land, the Morganthau plan could end in nothing but "hunger, unemployment, industrial stagnation and economic disruption." On this basis, democracy cannot be sold to the Germans. A solution, Mr. Hill firmly maintains, is possible. But not if handled by military men as the ingredients of diplomatic compromise, without regard to a comprehensive economic plan or to any specific goals at all.

The solution, unfortunately for the author, lies only in the co-operation of Russia and the United States to effect at least economic union of the military zones. The object is that Germany be a bridge and not a barrier between east and west — *can be*, just as the Balkan problem and atomic energy control and the peace of the world can be the elements of concord and not disagreement. The point up to which Mr. Hill leads us is that now is the time for aggressive American action, in the direction of all possible co-operation — forced if necessary — at least in the three zones exclusive of Russia's. If determination and an evidence of armed power were arrayed against her instead of feverish but futile editorial comment, Russia might have to capitulate on this score. There could be no assurance of success, but there is no possibility of success — by Mr. Hill's definition — if the present situation is allowed to continue.

In this report, the facts are much more important than the conclusions for the latter are beyond the scope of such a brief work. In another sense, though, the only solution to the German problem is identical with the solution of the much greater problem of which it is a part. Every phase of the difficulties in Germany is connected with American-Soviet differences. The definition of democracy in practice, the best plan for a new political and economic Germany, the most desirable balance between industry and agriculture: all are dependent for their resolution on the development of harmony between Berlin and Munich, eventually between Moscow and Washington. Mr. Hill, in his best journalistic style, has begun a job that it is for the American government and public to finish.

C.M.L.

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